PULSUS

User Manual

Pulse-dressed Liouvillian Spectroscopy Using Superoperators

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1 Installation

PULSUS requires Python 3.10 or newer. Install the package with:

```
pip install pulsus-spec
```

Then import it in Python:

```
import pulsus
```

The package name is `pulsus-spec`; the Python import name is `pulsus`. NumPy, SciPy, Matplotlib and QuTiP are installed as dependencies. The first example works in a Python script or a notebook, without cloning the GitHub repository.

This manual describes version 0.2.0. To install that specific version, use `pip install "pulsus-spec==0.2.0"`.

If you already have a repository checkout and want to use its local source, run `pip install -e .` from its root directory instead.

2 Your first spectrum

Two objects and two functions define the basic workflow: `SpectroscopySystem` constructs the system, `GaussianPulse` defines a pulse, `finite_pulse_spectrum` calculates the two-dimensional response, and `plot_spectrum` displays it.

2.1 Copy and run the example

The following two blocks form one complete program. Copy them, in order, into a Python script or notebook. Only the installed package and its standard dependencies are needed; no GitHub checkout or repository helper is required. The example displays a figure and does not write any files. For a script named `first_spectrum.py`, run `python first_spectrum.py` from the folder containing that script.

```python
import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
import numpy as np
import pulsus

# Use consistent model units with hbar = 1.
# Build two coupled two-level sites.
identity = np.eye(2, dtype=complex)
lower = np.array([[0, 1], [0, 0]], dtype=complex)
a = np.kron(identity, lower)
b = np.kron(lower, identity)
H = (
    1.0 * (a.conj().T @ a)
    + 1.2 * (b.conj().T @ b)
    + 0.1 * (a.conj().T @ b + b.conj().T @ a)
)
dipole_plus = a.conj().T + b.conj().T
dipole_minus = dipole_plus.conj().T
dipole = dipole_plus + dipole_minus

gamma = 0.05
nbar = 0.05
collapse_ops = [
    np.sqrt(gamma * (nbar + 1)) * a,
    np.sqrt(gamma * nbar) * a.conj().T,
    np.sqrt(gamma * (nbar + 1)) * b,
    np.sqrt(gamma * nbar) * b.conj().T,
]
system = pulsus.SpectroscopySystem(
    H=H,
    dipole=dipole,
    collapse_ops=collapse_ops,
    hbar=1.0,
    dipole_plus=dipole_plus,
    dipole_minus=dipole_minus,
)
rho_ss = system.stationary_state()
```

Listing 1: Part 1: construct the system and obtain its stationary state.

The two operators `a` and `b` lower the two-level sites. Their energies are 1.0 and 1.2, with coupling 0.1. The complete dipole is the sum of its raising and lowering components; supplying these components also allows the same system to be used with models that apply the rotating-wave approximation (RWA). Collapse operators contain square roots of the relaxation and excitation rates. `stationary_state()` returns a density matrix; pass that matrix explicitly as `rho0` in the calculation.

```
# Define the pulse and frequency axes, then calculate the spectrum.
pulse = pulsus.GaussianPulse(omega_L=1.10, sigma=1.25, E0=1.0)
omega1 = np.linspace(0.7, 1.5, 31)
omega3 = np.linspace(0.7, 1.5, 31)
S = pulsus.finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system=system,
    pulse1=pulse,
    pulse2=pulse,
    pulse3=pulse,
    omega1=omega1,
    omega3=omega3,
    T=20.0,
    eta=0.02,
    pathway="NR",
    rho0=rho_ss,
)

# Display the normalized imaginary component.
pulsus.plot_spectrum(
    omega1=omega1,
    omega3=omega3,
    spectrum=S,
    component="imag",
    normalize=True,
    title="Finite-pulse nonrephasing dimer spectrum",
    xlabel=r"$\omega_1$ (inverse time units)",
    ylabel=r"$\omega_3$ (inverse time units)",
)
plt.show()
```

Listing 2: Part 2: calculate and display the spectrum.

The same pulse is used for all three interactions. Its `sigma` is the standard deviation of the Gaussian field envelope. With $\hbar = 1$, frequencies and rates are in inverse model time units; `sigma` and the waiting time `T` use model time units. `pathway="NR"` selects the nonrephasing convention. Positive `eta` ensures causal-transform convergence and adds broadening; Section 5 explains its choice.

The result is a complex array with shape $(\text{len}(\omega_3), \text{len}(\omega_1))$: `S[j, i]` corresponds to `omega3[j]` and `omega1[i]`. Here the shape is $(31, 31)$. `component="imag"` selects the imaginary part for display; `normalize=True` divides that displayed component by its maximum absolute value. The complex array `S` remains available for further calculations.

2.2 Choose a model

Five functions calculate third-order spectra on the same type of frequency grid. The RWA retains resonant raising and lowering interactions. The first four models form an approximation ladder; the full impulsive function is an additional molecular reference.

Function	Calculation
`finite_pulse_spectrum` (A)	Full interaction with finite Gaussian pulse dressing.
`finite_pulse_rwa_spectrum` (B)	Finite Gaussian pulse dressing with RWA interactions.
`short_pulse_rwa_spectrum` (C)	RWA molecular response multiplied by scalar Gaussian spectral envelopes.
`impulsive_rwa_spectrum` (D)	RWA molecular response without pulse filtering or field prefactors.

Function	Calculation
`impulsive_spectrum`	Full-interaction molecular response without pulses or an R/NR selector.

To use B or C in the first example, replace the spectrum function with one of the following, keeping the same arguments:

- `pulsus.finite_pulse_rwa_spectrum`
- `pulsus.short_pulse_rwa_spectrum`

The example already supplies the dipole components required by the RWA. For D, omit the three pulse arguments:

```
S = pulsus.impulsive_rwa_spectrum(
    system=system,
    omega1=omega1, omega3=omega3,
    T=20.0, eta=0.02,
    pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
```

For the full impulsive model, use `pulsus.impulsive_spectrum` and also omit `pathway`. Impulsive functions return a molecular response without the Gaussian field factors, so their absolute amplitudes are not on the same scale as the finite-pulse calculation.

For a one-dimensional spectrum, use a linear spectrum function. Section 5 introduces the four linear models and their calling patterns. Section 6 develops the third-order models and R/NR conventions in more detail.

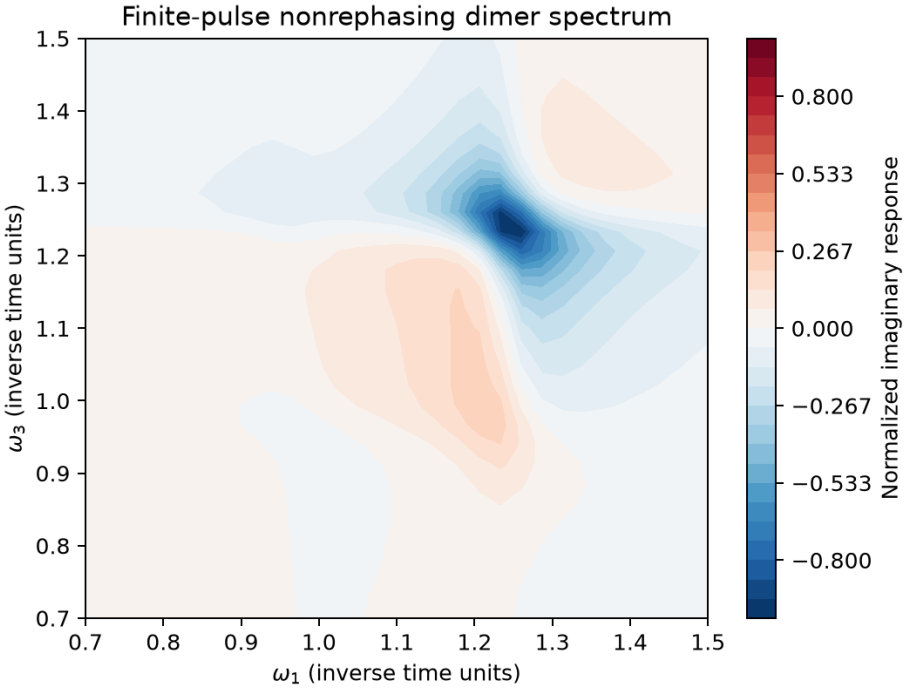


Figure 1: Output of the first example: normalized imaginary nonrephasing response on a 31×31 frequency grid. The horizontal coordinate is ω_1 and the vertical coordinate is ω_3, both in inverse model time units. The color scale shows the signed imaginary response.

3 Scientific scope

PULSUS calculates linear and third-order response functions for open quantum systems. It evaluates frequency-domain spectra directly from the field-free Liouvillian, so a time-domain interferogram is not needed first.

3.1 Supported systems

Provide the Hamiltonian, dipole and collapse operators as finite matrices. The package supports coupled electronic models and other systems that can be represented in a finite basis. For a Hilbert-space dimension d, each operator is $d \times d$ and the dense Liouvillian is $d^2 \times d^2$. The matrix size therefore sets the computational cost; selected-coordinate calculations reduce the number of spectral points evaluated.

3.2 Assumptions of the finite-pulse calculation

The standard finite-pulse formulation uses a time-independent Markovian Lindblad generator, electric-dipole coupling, Gaussian pulses with ordered, separated interactions, and a stationary initial state under the field-free Liouvillian. Use `system.stationary_state()` to obtain that state and pass it explicitly as `rho0`. Although several functions accept other density matrices, accepting a matrix does not establish the validity of the standard finite-pulse formula for a nonstationary preparation.

The public time-domain functions implement impulsive interactions. Finite-duration driven time propagation, non-Markovian dynamics, time-dependent field-free generators, and automatic construction of molecular Hamiltonians or dipole components are outside the documented production interface.

3.3 Calculation workflow

1. Construct the system in a consistent unit system and prepare its state.
2. Define Gaussian pulses for a finite-pulse or short-pulse model.
3. Select a response model, R/NR convention, waiting time and frequency axes.
4. Calculate the complex response and display the desired component.

4 Defining systems, initial states, and pulses

4.1 The system object

`SpectroscopySystem` groups the Hamiltonian, detection dipole, Lindblad collapse operators, and optional initial state. Its constructor is

```
system = pulsus.SpectroscopySystem(
    H, dipole, collapse_ops=None, rho0=None, hbar=1.0,
    dipole_plus=None, dipole_minus=None,
)
```

The first two arguments are required. For Hilbert-space dimension d, `H` and `dipole` must be dense $d \times d$ matrices. Supply the same dimensions for each collapse operator, the initial density matrix, and the two optional dipole components. NumPy arrays and nested Python lists are suitable inputs; SciPy sparse matrices are not a supported input format in this release. The implementation converts matrices to complex NumPy arrays and constructs dense superoperators of size $d^2 \times d^2$.

The field-free equation of motion is

$$\dot{\rho} = -\frac{i}{\hbar}[H, \rho] + \sum_k \left(C_k \rho C_k^\dagger - \frac{1}{2}\{C_k^\dagger C_k, \rho\} \right). \tag{1}$$

The interaction superoperator uses $\mathcal{V}\rho = (i/\hbar)[\mu, \rho]$. The sign and Fourier conventions are therefore already built into PULSUS; do not insert additional factors of i into a spectrum simply to match an assumed plotting convention.

The object exposes `H`, `dipole`, `collapse_ops`, `rho0`, `hbar`, and `d`. Its precomputed `L` and `V` are the field-free and full interaction superoperators. When dipole components are supplied, `V_plus` and `V_minus` are constructed as well. Rebuild the object when changing the Hamiltonian, dipole, dissipation, or $\hbar$: editing an attribute does not automatically recompute the corresponding superoperators.

4.2 Collapse operators contain their rates

For a decay channel with rate γ and lowering operator a, supply $C = \sqrt{\gamma}\, a$, rather than γa. The dissipator is quadratic in C. The dimer tutorial also includes excitation with occupation parameter $\bar{n}$:

```
gamma = 0.05
nbar = 0.05
collapse_ops = [
    np.sqrt(gamma * (nbar + 1.0)) * a,
    np.sqrt(gamma * nbar) * a.conj().T,
    np.sqrt(gamma * (nbar + 1.0)) * b,
    np.sqrt(gamma * nbar) * b.conj().T,
]
```

Here a and b act on their respective sites in the full tensor-product space. A single-site 2×2 collapse operator cannot be inserted into the four-state dimer without the tensor-product extension. These local excitation and decay terms define the model's bath; their stationary state should not be assumed to equal a Gibbs state of an arbitrary coupled Hamiltonian.

4.3 Choose one consistent unit system

PULSUS does not convert units. All arguments must be consistent with the equations above. In the tutorial, $\hbar = 1$: Hamiltonian entries, `omega_L`, `omega1`, `omega3`, `eta`, and decay rates use inverse model-time units; `sigma`, `T`, and time axes use the corresponding model-time unit. Frequencies are angular frequencies, not cycles per unit time.

For energies in eV and times in fs, one consistent choice is

```
hbar_eV_fs = 0.6582119569
system = pulsus.SpectroscopySystem(
    H=H_eV,
    dipole=dipole,
    collapse_ops=collapse_ops_per_sqrt_fs,
    hbar=hbar_eV_fs,
)
omega_L = photon_energy_eV / hbar_eV_fs
omega_axis = energy_axis_eV / hbar_eV_fs
```

In this convention, `sigma` and `T` are in fs and `eta` and γ are in fs^{-1}. A population lifetime τ gives $\gamma = 1/\tau$ in the chosen time unit. Include $\sqrt{\gamma}$ in each collapse operator once. The code divides Hamiltonian and interaction commutators by $\hbar$; it does not divide the Lindblad dissipator by $\hbar$. Do not apply an extra $1/\hbar$ to rates that already have inverse-time units. The product of dipole and field amplitude must also have energy units if absolute physical polarization amplitudes are required. The illustrative examples use model dipoles and fields.

4.4 The state before the first pulse

`rho0` is the system's density matrix immediately before the first interaction. Its diagonal entries give populations; its off-diagonal entries describe coherences. For a d-state model, supply a complex $d \times d$ matrix with trace one.

The tutorials start from a stationary state: a state that does not change under the Hamiltonian and dissipation before the pulses arrive. Calculate that state once, then pass it to the spectrum calculation:

```
rho_ss = system.stationary_state()
S = pulsus.finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system=system,
    pulse1=pulse, pulse2=pulse, pulse3=pulse,
    omega1=omega1, omega3=omega3, T=20.0, eta=0.02,
    pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
```

The method returns the matrix; it does not assign `system.rho0`. An explicit `rho0` in a function call takes priority over a state stored in the system. If neither is supplied, PULSUS raises an error rather than choosing a state for you.

The standard finite-pulse formulation assumes stationary preparation. For a model with several possible stationary states, choose the state that matches the intended preparation. The solver returns one stationary candidate and does not determine whether it is unique.

4.5 Dipole components for the rotating-wave approximation

Full-interaction calculations require only `dipole`. RWA calculations additionally require both `dipole_plus` and `dipole_minus`. PULSUS does not infer them from `H`. For the excitation-conserving dimer in the first tutorial,

```
dipole_plus = a.conj().T + b.conj().T
dipole_minus = dipole_plus.conj().T
dipole = dipole_plus + dipole_minus
system = pulsus.SpectroscopySystem(
    H=H, dipole=dipole, collapse_ops=collapse_ops,
    hbar=1.0, dipole_plus=dipole_plus,
    dipole_minus=dipole_minus,
)
rho_ss = system.stationary_state()
```

The raising/lowering definition must match the physical transition structure of the user's model. A matrix that happens to be triangular in an arbitrary basis is not automatically its positive-frequency dipole. The RWA functions use `V_plus` for field sign $+1$ and `V_minus` for sign -1; detection still uses the full dipole.

4.6 GaussianPulse and pulse duration

```
pulse = pulsus.GaussianPulse(
    omega_L=1.10, sigma=1.25, E0=1.0, phase=0.0,
)
```

`omega_L` is the carrier angular frequency and `sigma` is the temporal width of the field envelope. Both are required. `E0` is the peak field amplitude (default 1.0), and `phase` is in radians (default 0.0). To change pulse parameters, create a new `GaussianPulse`.

PULSUS uses the field envelope $\exp[-t^2/(2\sigma^2)]$. If a pulse duration is given as a full width at half maximum (FWHM), convert it to `sigma` before creating the pulse:

$$\sigma = \frac{\mathrm{FWHM}_E}{2\sqrt{2\ln 2}} \simeq \frac{\mathrm{FWHM}_E}{2.355}, \qquad \sigma = \frac{\mathrm{FWHM}_I}{2\sqrt{\ln 2}} \simeq \frac{\mathrm{FWHM}_I}{1.665}. \tag{2}$$

Here E means the *field-amplitude envelope* and I means the *intensity envelope*, proportional to the squared field envelope. Use the formula matching the stated duration; neither FWHM is `sigma` itself. Larger `sigma` gives a longer pulse with a narrower frequency bandwidth.

When changing the duration, keeping `E0` fixed keeps the peak field fixed. The pulse area then changes with `sigma`. To compare fixed envelope areas instead, choose $E_0 \propto 1/\sigma$. Finite-pulse and short-pulse results include field-amplitude factors; impulsive molecular responses do not. Normalizing each plot separately removes those amplitude differences from the display.

5 Linear spectroscopy

5.1 Choose a linear model

Linear spectrum functions take the system, a one-dimensional angular-frequency axis and the convergence parameter `eta`. Pulse-dependent functions also take a `GaussianPulse`. Each returns a complex array with one entry per frequency.

The positive parameter `eta`, in inverse time units, ensures convergence of the causal frequency transform. For a stable field-free Liouvillian,

$$G_\eta(\omega) = \int_0^\infty e^{(i\omega-\eta)t} e^{\mathcal{L}t}\, dt = [(\eta - i\omega)I - \mathcal{L}]^{-1}.$$

The factor $e^{-\eta t}$ makes the integral decay, but also adds broadening beyond the physical relaxation and dephasing in the collapse operators. When using `eta` only for convergence, choose a small positive value that does not materially change the spectral features and still permits stable linear solves. Reduce it and refine the frequency grid together; compare unnormalized complex responses, including widths and amplitudes. The tutorial value $\eta = 0.02$ is illustrative, not a universal optimum.

finite_pulse_linear_spectrum Gaussian pulse dressing with the full molecular interaction.

impulsive_linear_spectrum Full molecular interaction in the impulsive limit, without a pulse envelope.

short_pulse_linear_rwa_spectrum RWA molecular response weighted by the Gaussian pulse spectrum.

impulsive_linear_rwa_spectrum RWA molecular response in the impulsive limit, without a pulse envelope.

There is no finite-pulse linear RWA function in version 0.2.0. The four available functions have these calling patterns:

```
finite_pulse_linear_spectrum(
    system, pulse, omega, eta, sign=1, rho0=None)
impulsive_linear_spectrum(system, omega, eta, rho0=None)
short_pulse_linear_rwa_spectrum(
    system, pulse, omega, eta, sign=1, rho0=None)
impulsive_linear_rwa_spectrum(
    system, omega, eta, sign=1, rho0=None)
```

The RWA calls need the two dipole components supplied in the first example. Use `sign=1` for the positive-frequency field component.

5.2 Compare the four models

Continue in the same Python session as the first example, where `system` and `rho_ss` have been defined. The code below creates *one figure with two panels*: the real part on the left and the imaginary part on the right. Both panels contain all four models.

For this comparison the Gaussian prefactor is set to one at zero phase. Each complex curve is then divided by its own maximum magnitude so that the figure compares shapes. These separately normalized curves do not compare absolute amplitudes.

```
omega = np.linspace(0.5, 1.7, 241)
sigma = 1.25
pulse = pulsus.GaussianPulse(
    omega_L=1.10, sigma=sigma,
    E0=2 / (np.sqrt(2 * np.pi) * sigma),
)
shared = dict(system=system, omega=omega, eta=0.02,
              rho0=rho_ss)
spectra = {
    "Finite pulse, full": pulsus.finite_pulse_linear_spectrum(
        pulse=pulse, sign=1, **shared),
    "Impulsive, full": pulsus.impulsive_linear_spectrum(**shared),
    "Short pulse, RWA": pulsus.short_pulse_linear_rwa_spectrum(
        pulse=pulse, sign=1, **shared),
    "Impulsive, RWA": pulsus.impulsive_linear_rwa_spectrum(
        sign=1, **shared),
}
fig, axes = plt.subplots(1, 2, figsize=(10, 3.8),
                         constrained_layout=True)
styles = ["-", "--", "-.", ":"]
markers = ["o", "s", "^", "D"]
for k, ((name, spectrum), style, marker) in enumerate(
        zip(spectra.items(), styles, markers)):
    y = spectrum / np.max(np.abs(spectrum))
    options = dict(label=name, linestyle=style, marker=marker,
                   markevery=(5 * k, 28), markersize=4,
                   markerfacecolor="white", linewidth=1.1)
    axes[0].plot(omega, y.real, **options)
    axes[1].plot(omega, y.imag, **options)
for ax, component in zip(axes, ["Real", "Imaginary"]):
    ax.set_xlabel("Angular frequency (inverse model time)")
    ax.set_ylabel(component + " response / max |complex response|")
    ax.set_title(component + " part: all four models")
    ax.axhline(0, color="0.7", lw=0.6)
    ax.legend(fontsize=7)
plt.show()
```

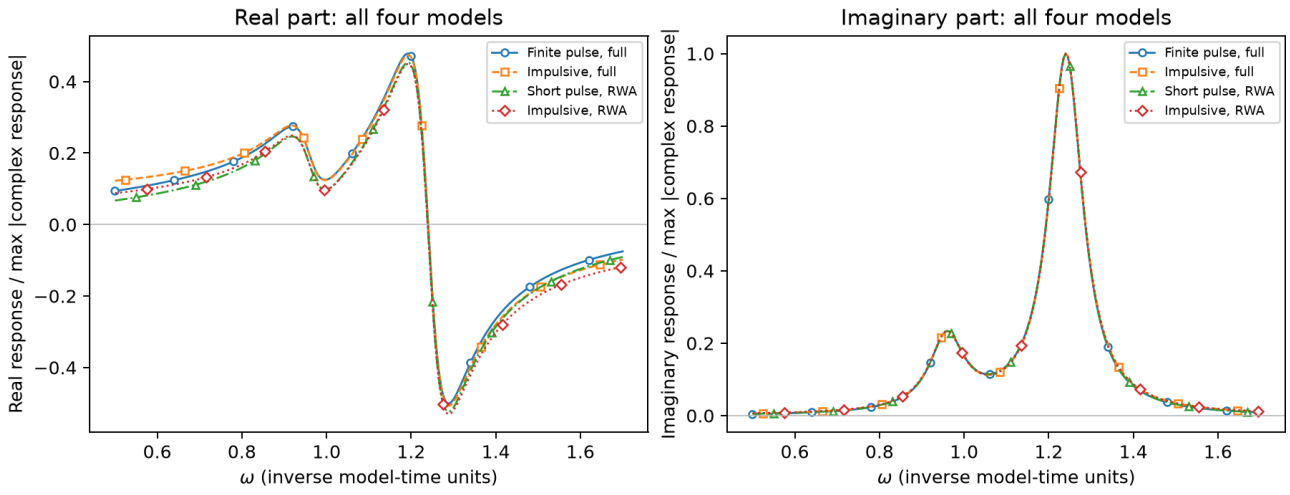


Figure 2: Real (left) and imaginary (right) parts of the four linear models. All four curves are present in each panel. For these parameters their imaginary parts nearly overlap; line styles and markers identify the models. Each complex curve is normalized separately before plotting.

The script `examples/manual/02_linear_models.py` performs this complete comparison if you have the repository examples. Package-only users can run the code above after the first example.

5.3 Choose what to plot

Linear plotting currently uses Matplotlib; PULSUS 0.2.0 does not provide `plot_linear_spectrum`.

The returned array is complex. Use `S.real`, `S.imag`, or `np.abs(S)` depending on the component you want to inspect. The functions do not automatically produce a phased absorption coefficient. Finite-pulse functions include the pulse amplitude and phase; impulsive functions return the molecular response without these pulse factors. Record the chosen field scaling when comparing amplitudes across models.

In the finite-pulse full-interaction function, `sign` selects the field-frequency component while retaining the complete molecular interaction. In an RWA function, it also selects the corresponding dipole interaction. These are distinct choices.

6 Third-order spectra and approximation models

6.1 Frequency axes and a common call pattern

A two-dimensional spectrum is evaluated at fixed waiting time `T`. Supply one-dimensional `omega1` and `omega3` axes, not a pair of meshgrid matrices. Every third-order grid function returns a complex NumPy array with shape

$$(N_3, N_1) = (\mathrm{len}(\omega_3), \mathrm{len}(\omega_1)). \tag{3}$$

Thus `S[j, i]` is the response at excitation coordinate `omega1[i]` and detection coordinate `omega3[j]`. The axes need not have equal lengths.

The full finite-pulse signature is

```
finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system, pulse1, pulse2, pulse3, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None,
)
```

All arguments before `pathway` are required. The pulses can be three distinct `GaussianPulse` objects; reusing one object is only a convenience in the tutorial. `T` is the interval used in $e^{\mathcal{L}T}$ and must use the same time unit as the pulse widths. Use nonnegative waiting times. The convergence parameter `eta` from Section 5 damps the causal transforms for excitation and detection and broadens their resolvents; it is not inserted into the waiting-time propagator. Physical waiting-time decay comes from $\mathcal{L}$.

```
omega1 = np.linspace(0.7, 1.5, 31)
omega3 = np.linspace(0.7, 1.5, 31)
S_NR = pulsus.finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system=system,
    pulse1=pulse, pulse2=pulse, pulse3=pulse,
    omega1=omega1, omega3=omega3,
    T=20.0, eta=0.02, pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
assert S_NR.shape == (len(omega3), len(omega1))
```

The functions evaluate the frequency-domain formula directly. They do not first generate a time-domain grid or apply a numerical Fourier transform.

6.2 Rephasing, nonrephasing, and explicit field signs

The convenience aliases resolve as

$$\mathrm{NR} : (+1, -1, +1), \qquad \mathrm{R} : (-1, +1, +1). \tag{4}$$

Calling `pulsus.pathway_signs("NR")` returns the first tuple. The arguments correspond to signed field-frequency components at the three ordered interactions. A tuple is a field-sign sector and does not isolate a single microscopic ground-state-bleaching, stimulated-emission, or excited-state-absorption diagram.

`signature=(s1,s2,s3)` accepts any three entries chosen from $+1$ and -1 and overrides `pathway`. For example,

```
signs = pulsus.resolve_signature(
    pathway="R", signature=(1, -1, 1),
)
assert signs == (1, -1, 1)  # Explicit tuple takes precedence.
```

Use the alias alone for ordinary R/NR calculations so that a conflicting tuple cannot accidentally conceal the intended selection.

These aliases do not change the supplied axes. With the repository's signed-frequency convention, the NR resonances are near positive ω_1 and positive ω_3, while R resonances are near negative ω_1 and positive ω_3. Construct the increasing native R axis explicitly:

```
omega1_R = -omega1[::-1]
S_R = pulsus.finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system=system,
    pulse1=pulse, pulse2=pulse, pulse3=pulse,
    omega1=omega1_R, omega3=omega3,
    T=20.0, eta=0.02, pathway="R", rho0=rho_ss,
)
```

Passing `pathway="R"` with an NR positive axis does not reflect the spectrum automatically. To display R on a positive excitation axis, reverse its columns together with the axis: use `-omega1_R[::-1]` and `S_R[:, ::-1]`. Axis reflection alone does not implement experimental phasing or turn R plus NR into a calibrated absorptive measurement.

6.3 Five available grid models

There are five third-order grid models. Four form a useful approximation ladder; a full-interaction impulsive molecular reference is also supplied:

A: `finite_pulse_spectrum` Full molecular interaction and operator-valued finite-Gaussian dressing. Field signs select pulse components without restricting $\mathcal{V}$.

B: `finite_pulse_rwa_spectrum` The same finite-pulse operator dressing, with each interaction replaced by $\mathcal{V}_+$ or $\mathcal{V}_-$ according to its field sign.

C: `short_pulse_rwa_spectrum` RWA molecular response multiplied by scalar Gaussian spectral amplitudes; operator-valued intrapulse dressing is omitted.

D: `impulsive_rwa_spectrum` RWA molecular response without finite pulse filtering or field prefactors.

Full impulsive reference: `impulsive_spectrum` Complete interaction at all three steps, without pulse dressing or field prefactors. It has no `pathway` or `signature` argument.

Models B and C share A's signature. D and the full impulsive reference use

```
impulsive_rwa_spectrum(
    system, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None,
)
impulsive_spectrum(
    system, omega1, omega3, T, eta, rho0=None,
)
```

The RWA models require both dipole components. The full models need only the complete dipole. The corresponding `_signal` functions have the same high-level arguments with scalar coordinates and return one complex number; `_response` functions take the matrices and individual pulse parameters directly. For B, the callable scalar names `pulsus.finite_pulse_rwa_signal` and `pulsus.finite_pulse_rwa_response` exist even though the release's `__all__` list omits those two entries. Prefer `import pulsus` and qualified names over wildcard imports.

6.4 A controlled comparison

Compare models at identical states, frequency coordinates, waiting time, and `eta`. With the RWA-capable tutorial system:

```
grid = dict(system=system, omega1=omega1, omega3=omega3,
            T=20.0, eta=0.02, rho0=rho_ss)
fields = dict(pulse1=pulse, pulse2=pulse, pulse3=pulse,
              pathway="NR")
A = pulsus.finite_pulse_spectrum(**grid, **fields)
B = pulsus.finite_pulse_rwa_spectrum(**grid, **fields)
C = pulsus.short_pulse_rwa_spectrum(**grid, **fields)
D = pulsus.impulsive_rwa_spectrum(**grid, pathway="NR")
M_full = pulsus.impulsive_spectrum(**grid)
```

The complete example `examples/manual/03_third_order_models.py` illustrates A–D for both NR and R. The $A - B$ difference isolates the effect of the molecular RWA within the same finite-pulse construction. The $B - C$ difference measures replacing operator dressing by scalar field factors within the RWA. A comparison of C to D must account for the field prefactors: D is a molecular response rather than the polarization produced by the specified Gaussian pulses.

More explicitly, the short-pulse expression uses

$$C(\omega_3, \omega_1) = E_3^{(s_3)}(\omega_3) E_2^{(s_2)}(-\omega_1) E_1^{(s_1)}(\omega_1) D(\omega_3, \omega_1).$$

The minus sign in the second pulse's frequency argument is part of this convention; do not replace it with $+\omega_1$ when constructing the expression manually.

For pulse signs s_k, define

$$c_k = \frac{E_{0k}}{2} \sqrt{2\pi}\, \sigma_k e^{i s_k \phi_k}. \tag{5}$$

A flat-envelope impulsive comparison on the finite-pulse amplitude scale uses $(c_1 c_2 c_3) D$. For the equal-pulse NR example,

```
signs = pulsus.pathway_signs("NR")
area_factor = np.prod([
    pulsus.gaussian_prefactor(
        sigma=pulse.sigma, E0=pulse.E0,
        phase=pulse.phase, sign=s,
    ) for s in signs
])
D_on_field_scale = area_factor * D
```

This restores the signed Gaussian prefactors, not the frequency-dependent filtering of C. At fixed peak field, reducing all widths to zero also reduces $c_1c_2c_3$ to zero. A statement about the impulsive limit must therefore specify fixed peak field, fixed area, or removal of prefactors.

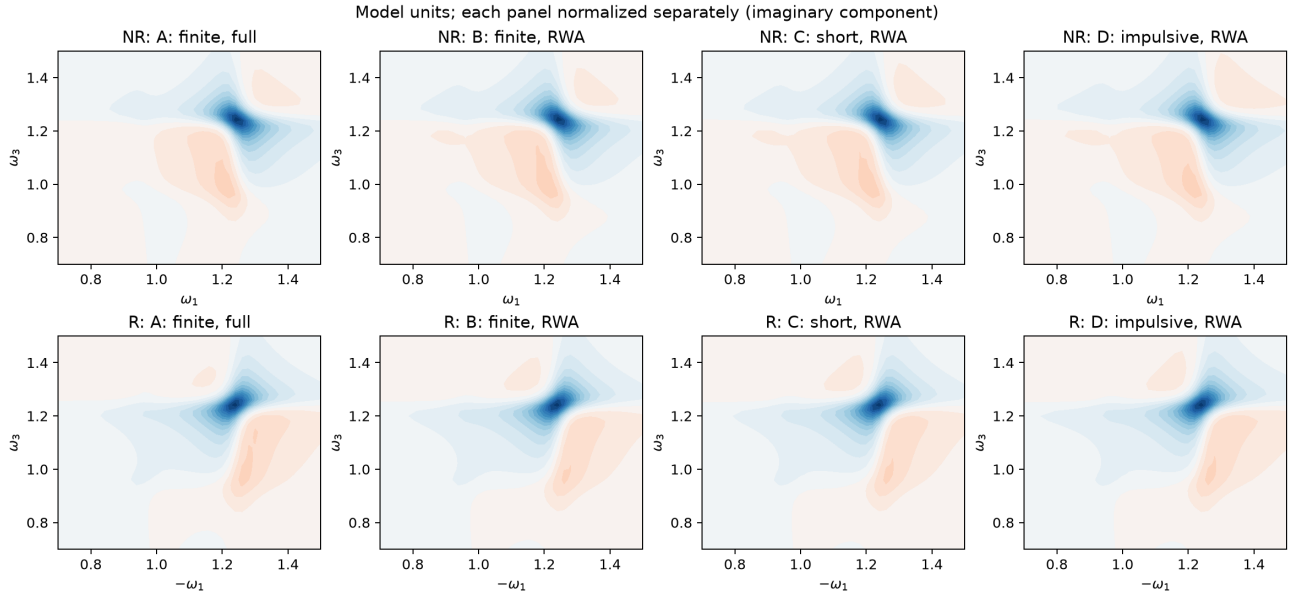


Figure 3: A–D for NR (top) and R (bottom), displayed against positive spectroscopic excitation coordinates. Every panel shows the imaginary component normalized separately to its maximum absolute value; the shared red/blue range is $[-1, 1]$. This visualization does not preserve relative amplitudes. The example uses unit Gaussian prefactors at zero pulse phase, $\sigma = 1.25$, $T = 20$ and $\eta = 0.02$.

6.5 Interpreting plots and convergence

The array contains a complex response. A contour of its imaginary part can have positive and negative lobes; its sign is not a population probability. Interference, field phases, detection convention, and the selected quadrature all contribute. A single colored lobe should not be assigned to one microscopic diagram solely from this plot.

Normalized contour plots help inspect shape, but retain the original complex arrays for amplitude comparisons. Refine axes until the features used in the analysis are stable; grid agreement does not remove approximation error. Vary pulse width and `eta` independently, and distinguish physical broadening in $\mathcal{L}$ from convergence broadening. The finite-pulse APIs implement the repository's ordered Gaussian dressing model; the word "finite" does not turn this into a general numerical propagation of an arbitrary overlapping pulse train.

7 Selected coordinates and time-domain calculations

7.1 Compute pairs without building a Cartesian grid

Use `finite_pulse_points` when only a diagonal cut, a few peak coordinates, or a prescribed path through frequency space is needed. Its signature matches `finite_pulse_spectrum`:

```
finite_pulse_points(
    system, pulse1, pulse2, pulse3, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None,
)
```

Here the two frequency arrays must be one-dimensional and have equal length. Entry k requests the pair $(\omega_1[k], \omega_3[k])$. The result has shape `(N,)` rather than `(N, N)`. Repeated excitation and detection values are

cached internally. This API computes the full finite-pulse model; there is no dedicated RWA selected-points wrapper in 0.2.0.

```
cut = np.linspace(0.7, 1.5, 61)
diagonal = pulsus.finite_pulse_points(
    system=system,
    pulse1=pulse, pulse2=pulse, pulse3=pulse,
    omega1=cut, omega3=cut,
    T=20.0, eta=0.02, pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
assert diagonal.shape == (len(cut),)
```

This evaluates the diagonal directly without calculating all 61^2 combinations. For an R diagonal in native coordinates, supply `omega1=-cut` and `omega3=cut` with `pathway="R"`. The pairs retain their supplied order.

When comparing points with an existing grid, preserve its row/column ordering:

```
rows = np.array([0, 10, 20])  # omega3 indices
cols = np.array([5, 15, 25])  # omega1 indices
values = pulsus.finite_pulse_points(
    system=system,
    pulse1=pulse, pulse2=pulse, pulse3=pulse,
    omega1=omega1[cols], omega3=omega3[rows],
    T=20.0, eta=0.02, pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
assert np.allclose(values, S_NR[rows, cols])
```

The two integer arrays above select three paired entries, not a three-by-three subgrid. The complete example is `examples/manual/04_selected_points.py`.

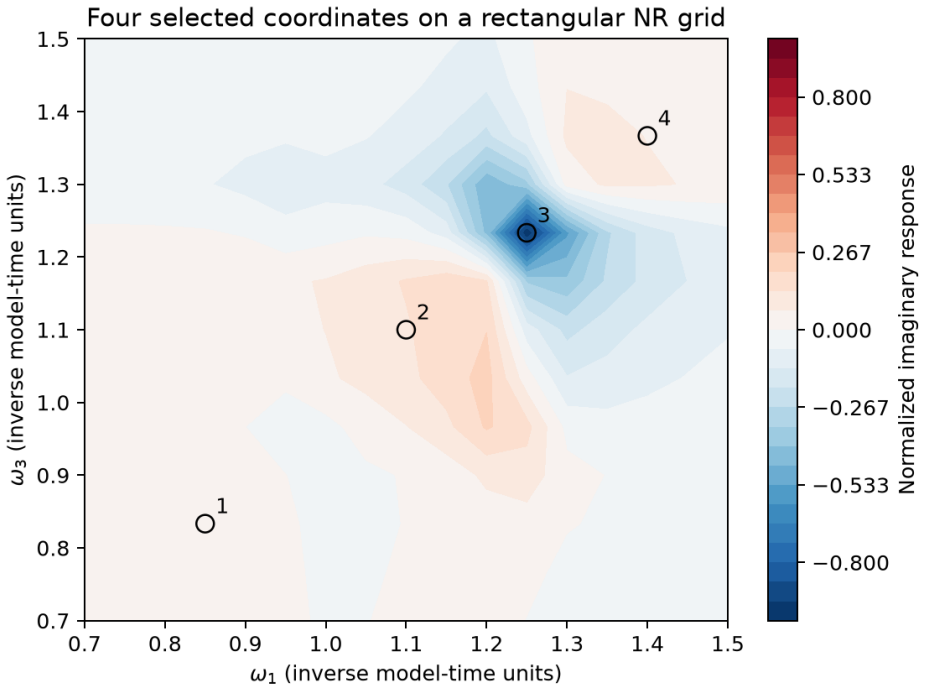


Figure 4: Four paired coordinates on a 13×17 Cartesian grid. The numbered circles mark the pairs evaluated by `finite_pulse_points`; their complex values agree with the corresponding grid entries. The background is a normalized imaginary NR response, sampled coarsely for this indexing demonstration.

7.2 A generic grid evaluator

`response_grid(response_function, omega1, omega3, **kwargs)` calls a scalar response function for every Cartesian pair. The function must accept `omega1` and `omega3` as keyword arguments. For example,

```
S_check = pulsus.response_grid(
    pulsus.impulsive_rwa_signal,
    omega1=omega1, omega3=omega3,
    system=system, T=20.0, eta=0.02,
    pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
```

The return shape is again (N_3, N_1). Prefer the dedicated spectrum wrappers for routine calculations: their caching avoids rebuilding frequency-dependent objects at every pair. The generic evaluator is useful for an explicitly defined scalar response or a small independent check. To obtain a few RWA coordinates, call its scalar `_signal` function in a loop rather than constructing a full Cartesian grid.

7.3 Delay-domain response functions

The public time-domain API uses impulsive interactions. It evaluates matrix-exponential propagation, and these functions have no `GaussianPulse` or `eta` argument. Nonnegative, one-dimensional time axes are required. Four functions return response arrays on delay axes:

```
impulsive_linear_time_signal(system, times, rho0=None)
impulsive_linear_rwa_time_signal(
    system, times, sign=1, rho0=None)
impulsive_third_order_time_signal(
    system, t1, t3, T, rho0=None)
impulsive_third_order_rwa_time_signal(
    system, t1, t3, T,
    pathway="NR", signature=None, rho0=None)
```

The linear results have shape `(len(times),)`. The third-order results have shape `(len(t3), len(t1))`, with nonnegative `T`. All are complex NumPy arrays. The full-interaction third-order response is

$$R^{(3)}(t_3, T, t_1) = \langle\langle \mu | e^{\mathcal{L}t_3} \mathcal{V} e^{\mathcal{L}T} \mathcal{V} e^{\mathcal{L}t_1} \mathcal{V} | \rho_0 \rangle\rangle. \tag{6}$$

The RWA version replaces the three interactions according to the resolved field signs and requires both dipole components.

```
times = np.linspace(0.0, 60.0, 301)
R1 = pulsus.impulsive_linear_time_signal(
    system=system, times=times, rho0=rho_ss,
)
t1 = np.linspace(0.0, 20.0, 41)
t3 = np.linspace(0.0, 20.0, 41)
R3 = pulsus.impulsive_third_order_rwa_time_signal(
    system=system, t1=t1, t3=t3, T=20.0,
    pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
```

Time axes are sampled at the values supplied; uniform spacing is not required by the propagator API. A numerical FFT would impose additional sampling and transform conventions that these functions do not supply.

7.4 Laboratory-time polarization traces

Two functions place the impulsive response on an absolute time axis:

```
impulsive_linear_polarization(
    system, times, pulse_time=0.0, sign=None, rho0=None)
impulsive_third_order_polarization(
    system, times, pulse_times,
    pathway=None, signature=None, rho0=None)
```

Both return a complex vector of length `len(times)`. In the linear function, `sign=None` uses the full interaction; $+1$ or -1 uses its RWA component. The response is zero before the nonnegative `pulse_time` and is evaluated at delay `times - pulse_time` afterwards.

In the third-order function, `pulse_times` must contain exactly (τ_1, τ_2, τ_3) with $0 \leq \tau_1 \leq \tau_2 \leq \tau_3$. It sets $t_1 = \tau_2 - \tau_1$ and $T = \tau_3 - \tau_2$, and returns zero before τ_3. If both `pathway` and `signature` are `None`, all three interactions are full. Supplying either selects the RWA field-sign sector, with an explicit signature taking precedence.

```
lab_times = np.linspace(0.0, 70.0, 351)
P3 = pulsus.impulsive_third_order_polarization(
    system=system, times=lab_times,
    pulse_times=(5.0, 10.0, 30.0),
    pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)
assert np.allclose(P3[lab_times < 30.0], 0.0)
```

The initial state in these functions is used directly at the first interaction. The implementation does not propagate it from laboratory time zero to τ_1 or `pulse_time`. A stationary state is unchanged by that omitted free interval. For a nonstationary preparation, propagate or otherwise specify the state just before the first pulse. These traces do not include independently specified pulse amplitudes.

7.5 Piecewise pathway history is a different object

The seventh public time-domain function is

```
impulsive_pathway_polarization(
    system, times, pulse_times, pathway="NR",
    signature=None, rho0=None, return_components=False)
```

It always uses RWA interactions and shows successive stages of one ordered field-sign history: first-order coherence between pulses 1 and 2, the second-order state between pulses 2 and 3, and third-order polarization from pulse 3 onward. The projection onto the dipole can vanish during a stage even though the intermediate density operator is nonzero.

With `return_components=True`, the return value is a tuple:

```
history, components = pulsus.impulsive_pathway_polarization(
    system=system, times=lab_times,
    pulse_times=(5.0, 10.0, 30.0),
    pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss, return_components=True,
)
P1_stage = components["first_order"]
P2_stage = components["second_order"]
P3_stage = components["third_order"]
assert np.allclose(history, P1_stage + P2_stage + P3_stage)
```

The three arrays have disjoint stage masks. Earlier orders are set to zero after their displayed stage. Thus `history` is a piecewise diagnostic visualization, not the total physical polarization including all simultaneously present orders and all pulse interactions. Use `impulsive_third_order_polarization` when the desired quantity

is strictly the third-order contribution after the third pulse. The complete tutorial script `examples/manual/05_time_domain.py` illustrates both objects.

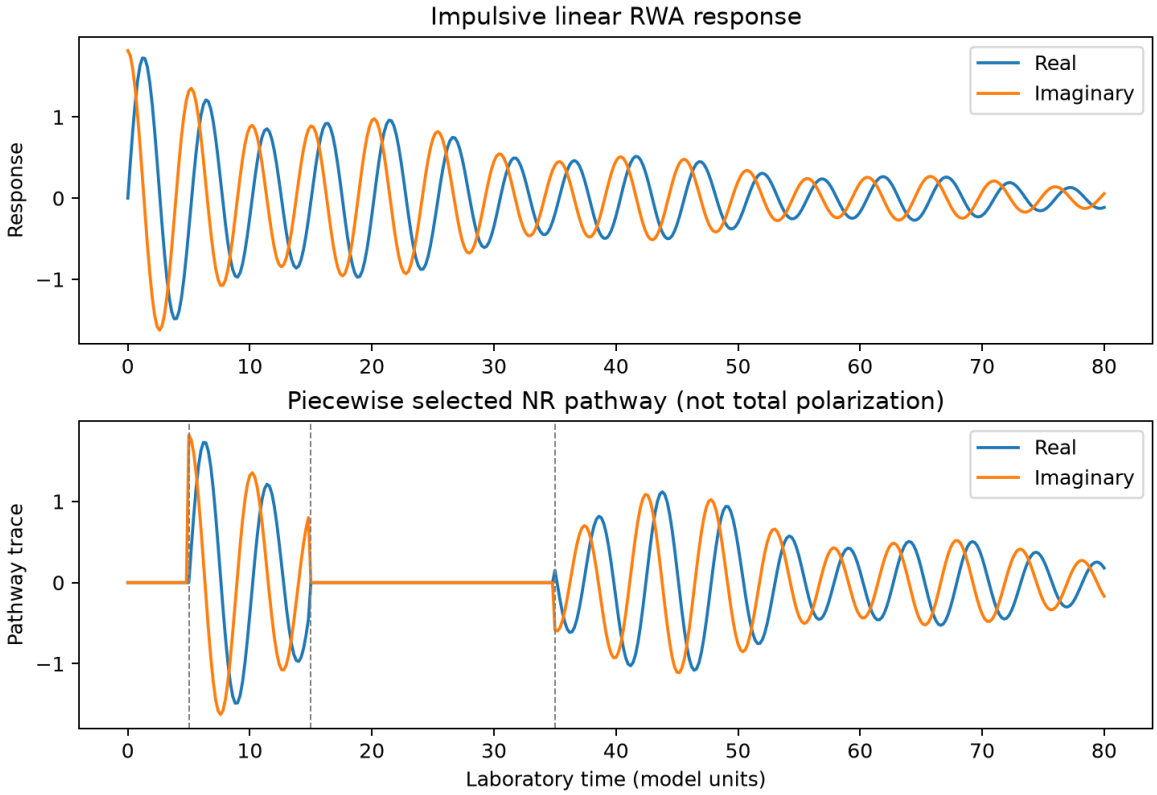


Figure 5: Impulsive linear RWA response (top) and the selected NR pathway's piecewise history (bottom). Dashed lines mark pulses at model times 5, 15 and 35. The stage trace after the third pulse agrees with the strict third-order polarization for the same ordered sequence. Earlier orders are not retained after their displayed stage.

8 Practical checks

Before increasing the size of a calculation, check these four choices:

Units. Use one time unit throughout. Frequencies, decay rates and `eta` are in its inverse; pulse widths and delays are in that unit. With physical Hamiltonian energies, use the matching value of $\hbar$.

Initial state. Pass the intended density matrix explicitly. For stationary preparation, use `rho0=rho_ss` after computing `rho_ss = system.stationary_state()`.

Frequency grid. Start with a small grid, then reduce the spacing around peaks until their shape and amplitude stop changing appreciably. The result is indexed as `S[omega3_index, omega1_index]`.

Convergence parameter. Use a small positive `eta` to ensure causal-transform convergence. Reduce it while refining the frequency grid until its added broadening no longer materially changes the features of interest and the linear solves remain stable. Check unnormalized complex responses so normalization does not hide amplitude changes.

Detailed checks of the implementation and time–frequency comparisons are kept separately in `docs/VALIDATION.md` and `docs/advanced_notes.md`.

9 Troubleshooting and practical recipes

9.1 Installation and environment

`ModuleNotFoundError: No module named 'pulsus'`

Activate the intended environment and install with `python -m pip install pulsus-spec`. Print `sys.executable` and `pulsus.__file__` to identify the interpreter and source actually used. Avoid naming your own script `pulsus.py`, which can shadow the package.

Notebook imports a different version.

Select the kernel belonging to the spectroscopy environment. If needed, install `ipykernel` in that environment and register it:

```
python -m pip install ipykernel
python -m ipykernel install --user --name pulsus --display-name "Python (PULSUS)"
```

Restart the selected kernel after updating a package already imported there.

An example cannot import `dimer_model` or `common`.

The older development examples may use `src/dimer_model.py`, which is not an installed public PULSUS module. This manual's first example is self-contained. Run examples 02–05 as scripts from the checkout, keeping their `common.py` helper beside them; do not copy those scripts alone and expect the helper to come from PyPI.

9.2 States and operators

`An initial state must be supplied ...`

Computing `rho_ss = system.stationary_state()` does not populate `system.rho0`. Pass `rho0=rho_ss` to the calculation, or assign a suitable initial state when constructing the system. A call-level `rho0` overrides the stored state.

`RWA calculations require dipole_plus and dipole_minus ...`

Supply both matrices to `SpectroscopySystem`. Check $\mu = \mu_+ + \mu_-$ and, for a Hermitian dipole, $\mu_- = \mu_+^\dagger$. The package does not infer the decomposition from H automatically.

Stationary state is ambiguous or appears unphysical.

The eigenvector-based routine chooses the eigenvalue closest to zero. A generator with multiple stationary states does not specify a unique preparation. Check trace, Hermiticity, eigenvalues and residual, then supply the state that represents the experiment. Adding arbitrary relaxation solely to force uniqueness changes the physical model.

Relaxation is much faster or slower than expected.

Collapse operators contain the square root of a rate. Using γA where $\sqrt{\gamma}A$ was intended changes the dissipative rate to a quantity proportional to γ^2. Also check that $H/\hbar$, rates, angular frequencies and time parameters use compatible units.

9.3 Coordinates, amplitudes and plotting

The rephasing signal is absent on a positive excitation axis.

The calculation uses negative `omega1` for the standard R sector. `pathway="R"` selects interaction signs but does not flip coordinates. Calculate on the negative axis, then display against $-\omega_1$ if desired.

A spectrum appears transposed.

Grid outputs have shape (N_3, N_1), with detection on rows. Use unequal axis lengths to diagnose orientation. Pair coordinates with `finite_pulse_points`; do not reshape its $(N,)$ output into a Cartesian grid unless you explicitly constructed and ordered that grid.

Changing `pathway` has no effect.
Check whether an explicit `signature` is also supplied. That tuple overrides the pathway alias. Also distinguish full impulsive functions, which do not have a pathway argument, from sector-selecting RWA functions.

The plotted sign or amplitude is surprising.
The response is complex. Choose `real`, `imag` or `abs` deliberately and record the phase and normalization conventions. The plotter defaults to the real component without normalization. Negative signed components are valid. Normalizing each plot separately removes absolute amplitude information and is unsuitable for amplitude-error comparisons.

Very narrow pulses give a small signal.
At fixed peak field, each Gaussian signed-component area scales as $E_0\sigma$. Narrowing the pulse therefore also reduces its area. If the purpose is an impulsive-limit comparison at fixed area, adjust E_0 consistently rather than comparing unlike field strengths.

Values are nonfinite or unexpectedly large.
Check input units, pulse widths, physical rates and stationarity first. The Gaussian dressing contains matrix exponentials; extreme parameter choices can expose numerical conditioning or fall outside the separated-pulse regime. Start from the validated small example and change one parameter at a time. Do not hide nonfinite values by normalizing or clipping the plot.

9.4 Prepare a custom model

Begin with a small truncated Hamiltonian, a dipole in the same basis and physically justified collapse operators. Verify state preparation and a linear spectrum before building a large third-order grid. For an electronic or vibronic RWA calculation, define the raising/lowering decomposition in the intended excitation manifolds. Then compare approximations on identical coordinates using a documented pulse-amplitude convention.

10 Function guide

The functions below cover most everyday calculations. API means *application programming interface*: the public classes and functions you call from Python. The complete reference, including less frequently used utilities and every exact signature, is in `docs/api.md`.

10.1 The functions you will use most

Function or class	When to use it
`SpectroscopySystem`	Define the Hamiltonian, dipole, dissipation and optional initial state.
`GaussianPulse`	Set a Gaussian pulse's carrier frequency, temporal width, amplitude and phase.
`system.stationary_state()`	Obtain a stationary initial density matrix; pass it as `rho0` in the calculation.
`*_spectrum`	Calculate the frequency array you will normally plot: a 1D linear spectrum or a 2D third-order spectrum.
`plot_spectrum`	Display a 2D spectrum. Use ordinary Matplotlib commands for 1D linear spectra.
`finite_pulse_points`	Calculate selected frequency pairs without building a full 2D grid.

10.2 What do signal, spectrum, and response mean?

Choose a model prefix, such as `finite_pulse` or `impulsive_rwa`; its suffix tells you how to supply inputs and what is returned:

`_spectrum`. Use a system object and frequency arrays. The result is a complex array: `(N,)` for linear spectroscopy, or `(N3, N1)` for third order.

`_signal`. Use a system object and a single frequency coordinate. The result is one complex number. Use this for one peak or one selected pair rather than a complete plot.

`_response`. Supply the Liouvillian, interaction and detection matrices directly. The result is one complex number. These functions are useful when working directly with superoperators; most users can use `_signal` or `_spectrum` instead.

`_time_signal`. Supply delay-time arrays instead of frequencies. The result is a complex time-domain array. All such functions in this version use impulsive interactions.

These are interface names: `signal` does not add a detector model. For example, the finite-pulse NR response can be evaluated at one pair or across a full Cartesian grid:

```
value = pulsus.finite_pulse_signal(
    system, pulse, pulse, pulse, 1.24, 1.24,
    T=20.0, eta=0.02, pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)  # one complex number
S = pulsus.finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system, pulse, pulse, pulse, omega1, omega3,
    T=20.0, eta=0.02, pathway="NR", rho0=rho_ss,
)  # shape (len(omega3), len(omega1))
```

10.3 Common calling patterns

The three third-order Gaussian-pulse models use the same arguments:

```
finite_pulse_spectrum(
    system, pulse1, pulse2, pulse3, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None)
finite_pulse_rwa_spectrum(
    system, pulse1, pulse2, pulse3, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None)
short_pulse_rwa_spectrum(
    system, pulse1, pulse2, pulse3, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None)
```

The impulsive models take no pulse object:

```
impulsive_spectrum(
    system, omega1, omega3, T, eta, rho0=None)
impulsive_rwa_spectrum(
    system, omega1, omega3, T, eta,
    pathway="NR", rho0=None, signature=None)
```

Replacing `_spectrum` with `_signal` in any of these five names keeps the arguments but requires scalar frequencies. `finite_pulse_points` uses the finite-pulse signature with paired arrays of equal length and returns an `(N,)` array.

For linear spectroscopy, the four spectrum functions are

```
finite_pulse_linear_spectrum(
    system, pulse, omega, eta, sign=1, rho0=None)
short_pulse_linear_rwa_spectrum(
    system, pulse, omega, eta, sign=1, rho0=None)
impulsive_linear_spectrum(system, omega, eta, rho0=None)
impulsive_linear_rwa_spectrum(
    system, omega, eta, sign=1, rho0=None)
```

Here `omega` is one 1D axis. Replacing `_spectrum` with `_signal` takes one frequency and returns one complex number. There is no separate finite-pulse linear RWA family in PULSUS 0.2.0.

For a 2D result, the plotting helper returns Matplotlib objects:

```
fig, ax, contour = pulsus.plot_spectrum(
    omega1, omega3, S, component="imag", normalize=True,
)
plt.show()
```

Use `component="real"`, `"imag"`, or `"abs"`. Normalization scales only the displayed component; it does not modify `S`. Refer to Section 7.3 for time-domain functions and to `docs/api.md` for lower-level response functions, Liouville-space utilities, resolvents, and Gaussian dressing functions.